

MATH 174 - Numerical Analysis

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1 Error

1.1 Approximation

Let x be an exact number.

Let y be an approximation of x .

Def: The absolute error is $|x - y|$.

Def: The relative error is $\frac{|x - y|}{|x|}$,

1.2 Round-off Error

Usually a machine uses a finite amount of memory to store a number.

machine $\leftarrow \pi$

Suppose a machine can store some number of digits.

1. Allocate a digit for sign, positive or negative.

2. Allocate a number of digits for the mantissa.
3. Allocate a digit for sign of the exponent.
4. Allocate a number of digits for the exponent.

Under rounding in the case of a 4 digit mantissa, $\pi = 0.3142 \cdot 10^1$, this is the machine # representation of pi.

Def: Round-off error are all errors arising from the error between actual # and machine #.

Notation:

$$\begin{aligned} x &= \text{real \#} \\ fl(x) &= \text{machine \# representation of } x \end{aligned}$$

In an s-digit rounding machine,

$$\text{Absolute error} = |x - fl(x)|$$

$$\text{Relative error} = \frac{|x - fl(x)|}{|x|} \leq \frac{1}{2} \cdot 10^{1-5} = 5 \cdot 10^{-5}$$

1.3 Floating Point Arithmetic

What happens under arithmetic operations? (+, -, ·, /)

Two things to watch out for:

1. Many operations can degrade error.
2. Catastrophic cancellation.

1.3.1 Degrading Error

number	machine
x	$fl(x)$
y	$fl(y)$
$x + y$	$fl(fl(x) + fl(y))$

The more nested $fl()$ there are, the larger the error will be. The same follows for -, ·, /.

When performing arithmetic, it temporarily allows for more digits than the mantissa allows.

Algorithmic "solutions"

$$((x + y) + z) + w$$

Worst case, 4 times the error.

$$(x + y) + (z + w)$$

Worst case, 3 times the error.

1.3.2 Catastrophic Cancellation

Ex: 3-digit rounding machine. Given 2 numbers: 0.312 and 0.311.

$$0.312 - 0.311 = 0.001 = 0.1 \cdot 10^{-2}$$

Loss of significant digits!

Ex: 5-digit rounding machine. Given 2 numbers:

$$x = 0.41626324$$

$$y = 0.41626323$$

$$x - y = 0.00000001$$

In machine:

$$fl(x) = 0.41626$$

$$fl(y) = 0.41626$$

$$fl(x) - fl(y) = 0.00000 = 0$$

$$fl(fl(x) - fl(y)) = 0$$

Relative error:

$$\begin{aligned} \frac{|x - y - fl(fl(x) - fl(y))|}{|x - y|} &= \frac{|x - y - 0|}{|x - y|} \\ &= 1 = 100\% \text{ error!} \end{aligned}$$

2 Speed

2.1 Dot Product

Consider dot product of vectors

$$\begin{aligned}\vec{x} &\in \mathbb{R}^n, \vec{y} \in \mathbb{R}^n \\ \vec{x} \cdot \vec{y} &= \begin{bmatrix} x_1 & x_2 & \dots & x_n \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} y_1 \\ y_2 \\ \vdots \\ y_n \end{bmatrix} \\ &= x_1 y_1 + x_2 y_2 + \dots + x_n y_n\end{aligned}$$

Count time-consuming operations:

1. Add/subtract
2. Multiply/divide
3. Comparisons
4. Memory access/storage

These are called FLOPS (floating point operations).

For the dot product, there are n multiplications and $n-1$ additions.

Adding these together, we get $2n - 1$ FLOPS.

Note that this expression is linear in n .

For large n , $2n$ dominates, $= \mathcal{O}(n) \approx \text{constant times } n$.

Ex: For n vs $2n$, $2n$ will take twice as long.

Ex: For $\mathcal{O}(n^2)$, n vs $2n$, $2n$ will take four times as long.

2.2 Memory

Consider a matrix $A_{n \times n}$

$$\begin{bmatrix} a_{11} & a_{12} & \dots & a_{1n} \\ a_{21} & a_{22} & \dots & a_{2n} \\ \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ a_{n1} & a_{n2} & \dots & a_{nn} \end{bmatrix} \text{ vs } \begin{bmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \\ \vdots \\ x_n \end{bmatrix}$$

The square matrix uses n^2 memory locations, while the vector uses n memory locations. Each number also uses 8 bytes, creating another goal for algorithm development, reduce memory usage.

3 Gaussian Elimination

3.1 Triangular Matrices

Write a MATLAB function that when given $A\vec{x} = \vec{b}$, computes $\vec{x}$

$$A\vec{x} = \vec{b}$$

A is triangular and invertible

Let's say A is lower triangular. $a_{ij} = 0, \forall j > i$

$$\begin{bmatrix} a_{11} & 0 & 0 & \dots & 0 \\ a_{21} & a_{22} & 0 & \dots & 0 \\ a_{31} & a_{32} & a_{33} & \dots & 0 \\ \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ a_{n1} & a_{n2} & a_{n3} & \dots & a_{nn} \end{bmatrix}$$

Similarly, if A is upper triangular, $a_{ij} = 0, \forall j < i$.

Ex: $A\vec{x} = \vec{b}$, A is upper triangular.

$$\begin{bmatrix} a_{11} & a_{12} & a_{13} \\ 0 & a_{22} & a_{23} \\ 0 & 0 & a_{33} \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \\ x_3 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} b_1 \\ b_2 \\ b_3 \end{bmatrix}$$

This gives us the following system of equations:

$$\begin{aligned} a_{11}x_1 + a_{12}x_2 + a_{13}x_3 &= b_1 \\ a_{22}x_2 + a_{23}x_3 &= b_2 \\ a_{33}x_3 &= b_3 \end{aligned}$$

So $x_3 = \frac{b_3}{a_{33}}, a_{33} \neq 0$ if A is invertible.

Then, $x_2 = \frac{b_2 - a_{23}x_3}{a_{22}}, a_{22} \neq 0$ if A is invertible.

Finally, $x_1 = \frac{b_1 - a_{12}x_2 - a_{13}x_3}{a_{11}}$, $a_{11} \neq 0$ if A is invertible.

This is called back substitution.

For $i = n, n-1, \dots, 1$

$$\begin{aligned} x_i &= \frac{b_i - (a_{i,i+1}x_{i+1} + \dots + a_{i,n}x_n)}{a_{ii}} \\ &= \frac{b_i - \sum_{j=i+1}^n a_{ij}x_j}{a_{ii}} \end{aligned}$$

Ex: $A\vec{x} = \vec{b}$, A is lower triangular.

$$\begin{bmatrix} a_{11} & 0 & 0 \\ a_{21} & a_{22} & 0 \\ a_{31} & a_{32} & a_{33} \end{bmatrix} \begin{bmatrix} x_1 \\ x_2 \\ x_3 \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} b_1 \\ b_2 \\ b_3 \end{bmatrix}$$

This gives us the following system of equations:

$$\begin{aligned} a_{11}x_1 &= b_1 \\ a_{21}x_1 + a_{22}x_2 &= b_2 \\ a_{31}x_1 + a_{32}x_2 + a_{33}x_3 &= b_3 \end{aligned}$$

This is called forward substitution.

For $i = 1, 2, \dots, n$

$$\begin{aligned} x_i &= \frac{b_i - (a_{i,1}x_1 + \dots + a_{i,i-1}x_{i-1})}{a_{ii}} \\ &= \frac{b_i - \sum_{j=1}^{i-1} a_{ij}x_j}{a_{ii}} \end{aligned}$$

Now given a regular matrix, make it triangular without changing the solutions. Recall Gaussian elimination.

1. E_i (equation i) replaced by cE_i . Row scaling.
2. E_i swapped with E_j . Row swapping.
3. E_i replaced by $E_i + cE_j$. Row addition.

3.1.1 Speed of Back Substitution

For $i = n, n-1, \dots, 1$

$$x_i = \frac{b_i - \sum_{j=i+1}^n u_{ij}x_j}{u_{ii}}$$

$i = n$	1 flop
$n-1$	3 flops
$\vdots$	$\vdots$
1	$2n-1$ flops

$$\sum_{j=1}^n (2j-1) = 2 \sum_{j=1}^n (j) - \sum_{j=1}^n 1 = 2 \left(\frac{n(n+1)}{2} \right) - n = n^2$$

With a large n , the term n^2 dominates, meaning $\mathcal{O}(n^2)$

3.2 Augmented Matrices

Gaussian Elimination on same matrices and different RHS comes up often in applications and algorithms.

3.2.1 LU Factorization

$$A = LU$$

where L is lower triangular with 1's in the diagonal and U is upper triangular

The important entries of L are called multipliers. These entries can be found with the negative of the coefficients of the steps of Gaussian elimination.

$L\vec{y} = \vec{b}$	get y from forward substitution
$U\vec{x} = \vec{y}$	get x from back substitution

3.3 Matrix Inverses

Matrix-vector multiplication:

$$(A\vec{x})_i = \sum_{j=1}^n a_{ij}x_j$$

which gives $2(n-1)n$ flops total

Backwards substitution uses n^2 flops.

Forward substitution uses $n^2 - n$ flops. Because we're working with L, which has 1's on the diagonal, we save n divisions.

In summary, getting A^{-1} to solve $A\vec{x} = \vec{b}$ is slower. Also, A^{-1} has memory storage issues for certain matrices. For example, a tridiagonal matrix, even though it has zeroes on most of its entries, A^{-1} has no zeroes.

3.3.1 Gaussian Elimination FLOP count

$$\begin{bmatrix} a_{11} & a_{12} & a_{13} & \dots & a_{1n} \\ a_{21} & a_{22} & a_{23} & \dots & a_{2n} \\ a_{31} & a_{32} & a_{33} & \dots & a_{3n} \\ \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ a_{n1} & a_{n2} & a_{n3} & \dots & a_{nn} \end{bmatrix} \rightarrow \begin{bmatrix} a_{11} & a_{12} & a_{13} & \dots & a_{1n} \\ 0 & a_{22} & a_{23} & \dots & a_{2n} \\ a_{31} & a_{32} & a_{33} & \dots & a_{3n} \\ \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ a_{n1} & a_{n2} & a_{n3} & \dots & a_{nn} \end{bmatrix}$$

This step has 1 division, 1 multiplication, 1 addition/subtraction.

In total there are $2n - 1$ total flops.

$$\begin{bmatrix} a_{11} & a_{12} & a_{13} & \dots & a_{1n} \\ 0 & a_{22} & a_{23} & \dots & a_{2n} \\ 0 & a_{32} & a_{33} & \dots & a_{3n} \\ \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ 0 & a_{n2} & a_{n3} & \dots & a_{nn} \end{bmatrix}$$

Repeat this for $n - 1$ rows (minus 1 because we are excluding the first row).

We can then repeat this for the inner block matrix.

$$(2n-1)(n-1) + (2(n-1)-1)((n-1)-1) + (2(n-2)-1)((n-2)-1) \dots$$

$$\sum_{j=1}^n j = \frac{n(n+1)}{2}$$

$$\sum_{j=1}^n j^2 = \frac{n(n+1)(2n+1)}{6}$$

4 Gaussian Elimination With Pivoting

But what about $A = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & 1 \\ 1 & 0 \end{bmatrix}$ Gaussian elimination fails on first step. Can we use another elementary row operation, namely, row swapping?

In general,

$$\begin{bmatrix} 0 & a_{12} & a_{13} & \dots & a_{1n} \\ a_{21} & a_{22} & a_{23} & \dots & a_{2n} \\ a_{31} & a_{32} & a_{33} & \dots & a_{3n} \\ \vdots & \vdots & \vdots & \ddots & \vdots \\ a_{n1} & a_{n2} & a_{n3} & \dots & a_{nn} \end{bmatrix}$$

4.1 Error

Find a nonzero element a_{i1} then perform $E_1 \leftrightarrow E_i$. We have to do this before each elimination step. However, there is error involved.

$$\left[\begin{array}{cc|c} \epsilon & 1 & 1 \\ \times & \times & \times \end{array} \right] \rightarrow \tilde{x}_2 = x_2 + \delta$$

$$\rightarrow \tilde{x}_1 = \frac{1 - \tilde{x}_2}{\epsilon} = \frac{1 - x_2 - \delta}{\epsilon} = \frac{1 - x_2}{\epsilon} - \frac{\delta}{\epsilon}$$

Note that in this situation, choosing an x_1 that is small leads to a small ϵ which leads to a large error. We have to be careful when swapping rows.

$$\left[\begin{array}{cc|c} \epsilon & 1 & 1 \\ 0 & \times & \times \end{array} \right]$$

$$\begin{aligned}
\tilde{x}_2 &= x_2 + \delta \\
|\delta| &= |\tilde{x}_2 - x_2| \\
\tilde{x}_1 &= x_1 - \frac{\delta}{\epsilon} \\
\left| \frac{\delta}{\epsilon} \right| &= |\tilde{x}_1 - x_1|
\end{aligned}$$

4.1.1 Section 7.5

$$\begin{aligned}
A\vec{x} &= \vec{b} \\
A(\vec{x} + \delta\vec{x}) &= \vec{b} + \delta\vec{b} \\
A\delta\vec{x} &= \delta\vec{b} \\
\delta\vec{x} &= A^{-1}\delta\vec{b}
\end{aligned}$$

We can use a norm to measure the size of error vectors.

$$\begin{aligned}
\|\delta\vec{x}\| &= \|A^{-1}\delta\vec{b}\| \leq \|A^{-1}\| \|\delta\vec{b}\| \\
\frac{\|\delta\vec{x}\|}{\|\vec{x}\|} &\leq \|A\| \|A^{-1}\| \frac{\|\delta\vec{b}\|}{\|\vec{b}\|}
\end{aligned}$$

relative error $\leq$ condition # $\times$ relative size of change of $\vec{b}$

Ex: Suppose you need to solve accurately $A\vec{x} = \vec{b}$ and someone gives you the approx $\tilde{x}$, is it accurate?

We can use the residual vector.

$$\begin{aligned}
\vec{r} &= \vec{b} - A\tilde{x} \\
A\tilde{x} &= \vec{b} - \vec{r}
\end{aligned}$$

If A is well-conditioned (small condition number), then $\frac{\|\vec{r}\|}{\|\vec{b}\|}$ is small and $\frac{\|\vec{x} - \tilde{x}\|}{\|\vec{x}\|}$ small.

If A is ill-conditioned (large condition number), then we don't know.

4.2 Row Swapping

$$PA = LU$$

where PA is A with rows swapped. P is the identity matrix with its rows swapped to denote the row swapping operations done on A .

Now solving LU factorization:

$$\begin{aligned} A\vec{x} &= \vec{b} \\ PA\vec{x} &= P\vec{b} \\ LU\vec{x} &= P\vec{b} \\ L\vec{y} &= P\vec{b} \quad \text{forward sub} \\ U\vec{x} &= \vec{y} \quad \text{back sub} \end{aligned}$$

4.3 Speed

In an $n \times n$ matrix, it takes $n - 1$ comparisons for the first step, $n - 2$ for the second step, and so on.

$$\begin{aligned} \sum_{j=1}^{n-1} j &= \frac{(n-1)n}{2} \\ &= \mathcal{O}(n^2) \end{aligned}$$

This is negligible additional amount of work for large n compared to $\mathcal{O}(n^3)$ of Gaussian elimination.

Even safer than row partial pivoting in terms of error:

1. Scaled row partial pivoting:
2. Complete pivoting: row swaps and column swaps to move the largest element to pivot element.

5 Approximations

5.1 Fixed Point Problems

Solve an equation $g(x) = h(x)$

Modify to $f(x) = x$

Now we have the fixed point problem, which we can try to solve using fixed point iterations.

Start with guess $x^{(0)}$

Then iterate $x^{(k+1)} = f(x^{(k)})$

The $x^{(k)}$ are approximations of the fixed point.

We can also write $A\vec{x} = \vec{b}$ as fixed point problem using splitting.

$$A = M - N$$

$$(M - N)\vec{x} = \vec{b}$$

$$M\vec{x} = N\vec{x} + \vec{b}$$

$$\vec{x} = M^{-1}(N\vec{x} + \vec{b})$$

where the RHS is $f(\vec{x})$

Choices for M, N:

Let $A = D - L - U$, where D is diagonal, L is lower triangular, U is upper triangular. We have

1. Jacobi iterative method.
2. Gauss-Seidel iterative method.

5.1.1 Jacobi Iterative Method

$$M = D$$

$$N = L + U$$

$$D\vec{x} = (L + U)\vec{x} + \vec{b}$$

$$x_i^{(k+1)} = \frac{b_i - \sum_{j=1}^{i-1} a_{ij}x_j^{(k)} - \sum_{j=i+1}^n a_{ij}x_j^{(k)}}{a_{ii}}$$

5.1.2 Gauss-Seidel Iterative Method

$$\begin{aligned} M &= D - L \\ N &= U \\ (D - L)\vec{x} &= U\vec{x} + \vec{b} \end{aligned}$$

$$x_i^{(k+1)} = \frac{b_i - \sum_{j>i} a_{ij}x_j^{(k)} - \sum_{j<i} a_{ij}x_j^{(k+1)}}{a_{ii}}$$

5.2 Convergence

Jacobi & Gauss-Seidel are iterative methods. They start with a guess, which improves their approximations at each step. We want $\vec{x}^{(k)}$ sequence of approximations to converge to the exact solution.

Practically, we need a stopping condition. Here are our choices:

1. Stop after certain number of steps
2. Stop when residual is small, where the residual is $\vec{r} = \vec{b} - A\vec{x}$, $\|\vec{r}\| \leq \text{tolerance}$.
3. Stop when the algorithm slows down, $\|x^{(k+1)} - x^{(k)}\| \leq \text{tolerance}$.

$$\begin{aligned} A &= M - N \\ \text{Jacobi} \quad M &= D \\ \text{Gauss-Seidel} \quad M &= D - L \\ A\vec{x} = \vec{b} &\rightarrow (M - N)\vec{x} = \vec{b} \\ &\rightarrow M\vec{x} = N\vec{x} + \vec{b} \\ &\rightarrow \vec{x} = M^{-1}(N\vec{x} + \vec{b}) \\ &\rightarrow \vec{x}^{(k+1)} = M^{-1}(N\vec{x}^{(k)} + \vec{b}) \\ &\rightarrow \vec{x}^{(k+1)} = \mathbb{T}\vec{x}^{(k)} + \vec{c} \end{aligned}$$

where $\mathbb{T}$ is the iteration matrix, $M^{-1}N$
and $\vec{c}$ is $M^{-1}\vec{b}$

An iterative method using $\vec{x}^{(k+1)} = T\vec{x}^{(k)} + \vec{c}$ converges if $\varphi(T) < 1$, where $\varphi(T)$ is the spectral radius of T .

Def: Spectral radius $\varphi(A) = \max\{|\lambda_1|, |\lambda_2|, \dots, |\lambda_n|\}$

$$\begin{aligned}\|\vec{e}^{k+1}\| &\approx \varphi(T)\|\vec{e}^k\| \\ \|\vec{e}^k\| &\approx \varphi(T)^k\|\vec{e}^{(0)}\|\end{aligned}$$

Let $A = \begin{bmatrix} a & b \\ b & c \end{bmatrix}$

$$T_J = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & \frac{-b}{a} \\ \frac{-b}{c} & 0 \end{bmatrix}$$

$$T_{GS} = \begin{bmatrix} 0 & \frac{-b}{\frac{b^2}{ac}} \\ 0 & \frac{b^2}{ac} \end{bmatrix}$$

$$\det T_J = \begin{bmatrix} -\lambda & \frac{-b}{a} \\ \frac{-b}{c} & -\lambda \end{bmatrix} = \lambda^2 - \frac{b^2}{ac}$$

$$\det T_{GS} = \begin{bmatrix} -\lambda & \frac{-b}{a} \\ 0 & \frac{b^2}{ac} - \lambda \end{bmatrix} = \lambda(\lambda - \frac{b^2}{ac})$$

$$\lambda_J = \pm \sqrt{\frac{b^2}{ac}} = \varphi(T_J)$$

$$\lambda_{GS} = 0 \text{ or } \frac{b^2}{ac}, \quad \varphi(T_{GS}) = \frac{b^2}{ac}$$

If they converge, then $\frac{b^2}{|ac|} < 1$, and when this condition is true, Gauss-Seidel's method has a lower spectral radius than Jacobi, since $x < \sqrt{x}$ for $x < 1$.

However, there are examples for general matrices where Jacobi's method converges and Gauss-Seidel's method does not. So for general matrices, we do not know which one is faster. In practice, however, Gauss-Seidel is almost always faster.

Other iterative methods:

1. Richardson's
2. Successive Over-Relaxation (SOR) - Gauss-Seidel is in this class
3. Conjugate Gradient (not splitting)
4. GMRES

5.2.1 Richardson's Iterative Method

$$\begin{aligned}
A\vec{x} &= \vec{b} \\
\omega A\vec{x} &= \omega\vec{b} \\
\omega A &= I - I + \omega A \\
&= I - (I - \omega A) \text{ where } I \text{ is } M, \text{ and } (I - \omega A) \text{ is } N
\end{aligned}$$

$$\begin{aligned}
x^{k+1} &= M^{-1}(Nx^k + \omega b) \\
&= Nx^k + \omega b \\
&= (I - \omega A)x^k + \omega b \\
x_i^{k+1} &= x_i^k - \omega \sum_{j=1}^n a_{ij}x_j^k + \omega b_i
\end{aligned}$$

6 Eigenvalues

6.1 Finding Eigenvalues of a Matrix

Given $A \in \mathbb{R}^{n \times n}$, we want to find either an eigenvalue or all eigenvalues.

Suppose we have $\lambda_1, \lambda_2, \dots, \lambda_n$, where $|\lambda_1| \geq |\lambda_2| \geq \dots \geq |\lambda_n|$

Consider the special case where A has a linearly independent set of eigenvectors (which is true when A is symmetric).

Let our eigenvectors be $\vec{x}_1, \vec{x}_2, \dots, \vec{x}_n$ with $\vec{x}_i$ corresponding to λ_i .

So $A\vec{x}_i = \lambda_i\vec{x}_i$, with the iterative method, we can start with initial guess $\vec{x}^{(0)}$

$$\begin{aligned}
\vec{x}^{(0)} &= \alpha_1\vec{x}_1 + \alpha_2\vec{x}_2 + \dots + \alpha_n\vec{x}_n \\
A\vec{x}^{(0)} &= A\alpha_1\vec{x}_1 + A\alpha_2\vec{x}_2 + \dots + A\alpha_n\vec{x}_n \\
A\vec{x}^{(0)} &= \alpha_1A\vec{x}_1 + \alpha_2A\vec{x}_2 + \dots + \alpha_nA\vec{x}_n \\
A\vec{x}^{(0)} &= \alpha_1\lambda_1\vec{x}_1 + \alpha_2\lambda_2\vec{x}_2 + \dots + \alpha_n\lambda_n\vec{x}_n \\
A^k\vec{x}^{(0)} &= \alpha_1\lambda_1^k\vec{x}_1 + \alpha_2\lambda_2^k\vec{x}_2 + \dots + \alpha_n\lambda_n^k\vec{x}_n \\
&\approx \alpha_1\lambda_1^k\vec{x}_1 \text{ which is our approximate eigenvector}
\end{aligned}$$

The convergence speed of this approximation is related to $\left|\frac{\lambda_2}{\lambda_1}\right|^k$ (compared to $\varphi(\mathbf{T}^k)$).

There are two main issues with this approximation.

1. $\lambda_1^k \alpha_1 \vec{x}_1 \rightarrow \infty$ or 0 which is not our eigenvector.
2. $\lambda_1^k \alpha_1 \vec{x}_1 \rightarrow 0$ if $\alpha_1 = 0$

6.2 Power Method

1. Start with initial guess $\vec{x}^{(0)}$.
2. Find component largest in magnitude and replace $\vec{x}^{(0)}$ by $\vec{x}^{(0)}$ divided by largest component. This is called normalization.
3. Perform $A\vec{x}^{(0)}$ and call result $\vec{x}^{(1)}$
4. Normalize $\vec{x}^{(1)}$, this is our approximate eigenvector.
5. Repeat from step 3.

But what about other eigenvalues?

6.2.1 Inverse Power Method

1. Start with initial guess $\vec{x}^{(0)}$ and normalize it.
2. Choose a q which will be our initial guess for eigenvalue.
3. Find the LU factorization of $A - qI$, where $LU = A - qI$
4. For each step, $LU\vec{y}^{(k+1)} = \vec{x}^{(k)}$
5. Let $U\vec{y} = \vec{z}$ and solve $L\vec{z} = \vec{x}$
6. Solve $U\vec{y} = \vec{z}$ for $\vec{y}$
7. Normalize $\vec{y}^{(k+1)}$ to get $\vec{x}^{(k+1)}$

A^{-1} has eigenvalues $\frac{1}{\lambda_1}, \frac{1}{\lambda_2}, \dots, \frac{1}{\lambda_n}$ with $|\frac{1}{\lambda_n}| \geq |\frac{1}{\lambda_{n-1}}| \geq \dots \geq |\frac{1}{\lambda_1}|$
Power method on A^{-1} gives $\frac{1}{\lambda_n}$

7 Root-finding Problems

The root finding problem is defined as $f(x) = 0$.

Intermediate Value Theorem (IVT)

If $f(x)$ is continuous in $[a, b]$ and if you choose any M between $f(a)$ and $f(b)$. Then $\exists f(c), c \in [a, b]$ s.t. $f(c) = M$

Now consider $M = 0$

If f is continuous in $[a, b]$ and $f(a), f(b)$ have different signs. Then $\exists c \in [a, b]$ s.t. $f(c) = 0$, where c is a root.

If a, b are close to each other s.t. $|a - b| \leq \epsilon$ and $f(a), f(b)$ have different signs. Then for any $c \in [a, b]$, $|c - r| \leq |a - b| \leq \epsilon$

7.1 Bisection Method

If we have a sufficiently small interval with the root inside, then any point within the interval is a good approximation of the root. However, if we chose the midpoint of the interval, we can reduce the error bound by half, $|c - r| \leq \frac{b-a}{2}$. The bisection method relies on this to reduce the interval and have our guesses converge on the root itself.

1. Suppose initial interval $[a_0, b_0]$ with $f(a), f(b)$ having different signs.
2. Find the midpoint $c_0 = \frac{a+b}{2}$, this is our zeroth approximation.
3. Find $f(c_0)$ and check its sign.
4. Choose $[a_0, c_0]$ or $[c_0, b_0]$ depending on which has different signs.
5. Rename the new interval $[a_1, b_1]$ and find c_1 .

Eventually, $c_k \rightarrow r$ and $|c_k - r| \rightarrow 0$, because

$$|c_k - r| \leq \frac{b_k - a_k}{2} = \frac{1}{2} \frac{b_{k-1} - a_{k-1}}{2} = \frac{b_0 - a_0}{2^{k+1}} \rightarrow 0$$

Note: different signs can be ambiguous, mathematically we can use $f(a)f(b) \leq 0 \implies$ different signs.

ex How many iterations until we get error $\leq 10^{-6}$ with initial bounds $[2, 3]$?

$$\begin{aligned}
 |c_k - r| &\leq \frac{b_0 - a_0}{2^{k+1}} \\
 &\leq \frac{1}{2^{k+1}} \\
 \Rightarrow 2^{k+1} &\geq 10^6 \\
 k + 1 &\geq \log_2 10^6 \\
 k + 1 &\geq 6 \log_2 10 \\
 k &\geq 6 \log_2 10 - 1 \approx 18.932 \Rightarrow c_{19}
 \end{aligned}$$

7.2 Newton's Method / Tangent Line Approximation

This method uses the root of the tangent line at an initial guess to approximate the root of the function.

$$\begin{aligned}
 y &= f'(p_0)(x - p_0) + f(p_0) \text{ where } p_0 \text{ is initial guess} \\
 0 &= f'(p_0)(x - p_0) + f(p_0) \\
 x &= p_0 - \frac{f(p_0)}{f'(p_0)} \\
 \text{Set } p_1 &= p_0 - \frac{f(p_0)}{f'(p_0)} \\
 p_{k+1} &= p_k - \frac{f(p_k)}{f'(p_k)}
 \end{aligned}$$

There are several cases where Newton's method fails:

1. Initial guess has a tangent slope of 0.
2. The function has a vertical slope at the root. This causes certain guesses to bounce around the root rather than converge.

7.2.1 Error & Convergence for Newton's Method

Using the Taylor Series between r and p_k :

$$e_{k+1} = \frac{f''(e_k)}{2f'(p_k)} e_k^2$$

Def: If $e_k \rightarrow 0$ and

$$\lim_{k \rightarrow \infty} \frac{|e_{k+1}|}{|e_k|} \rightarrow c \quad \text{This is linear convergence.}$$

$$\lim_{k \rightarrow \infty} \frac{|e_{k+1}|}{|e_k|^2} \rightarrow c \quad \text{This is quadratic convergence.}$$

Thm

If f is twice continuously differentiable around root r and $f'(r) \neq 0$ and p_0 sufficiently close to r . Then Newton's method converges for initial guess p_0 with quadratic convergence.

8 Interpolation

8.1 Lagrange Interpolating Polynomial

Given the data points $(x_0, y_0), (x_1, y_1), \dots, (x_n, y_n)$ where x_k is a node and (x_k, y_k) is a data point. How do we find a polynomial that interpolates them?

Since there are infinitely many polynomials that can fit a set of data points, we want to choose the "simplest," or the lowest degree polynomial possible. Specifically, since there are $n+1$ data points, we want a polynomial of degree $\leq n$.

8.1.1 Existence

Idea: find a degree $\leq n$ polynomial that satisfies

$$\begin{array}{c|cccccc} \text{node} & x_0 & \dots & x_k & \dots & x_n \\ \text{value} & 0 & \dots & 1 & \dots & 0 \end{array}$$

We will call this polynomial $L_{n,k}$

$$\text{Then we have } p(x) = y_0 L_{n,0}(x) + y_1 L_{n,1}(x) + \dots + y_n L_{n,n}(x)$$

$$p(x_1) = 0 + y_1 + 0 + \dots + 0$$

$$p(x_k) = y_k$$

$$L_{n,k}(x) = \prod_{j=0, j \neq k}^n \frac{(x - x_j)}{(x_k - x_j)}$$

ex Find an interpolating polynomial for the following data points.

$$\begin{array}{c|ccc} x & -1 & 2 & 1 \\ y & 3 & 1 & -4 \end{array}$$

Since there are $n + 1 = 3$ data points, we want a polynomial of degree $n = 2$ or less. So a parabola, or preferably, a line.

$$\begin{aligned} \text{Recall that } p(x) &= y_0 L_{n,0}(x) + y_1 L_{n,1}(x) + \dots + y_n L_{n,n}(x) \\ &= 3 \frac{(x-2)(x-1)}{(-1-2)(-1-1)} + 1 \frac{(x+1)(x-1)}{(2+1)(2-1)} - 4 \frac{(x+1)(x-2)}{(1+1)(1-2)} \end{aligned}$$

Here this $p(x)$ is said to be in Lagrange form.

8.1.2 Uniqueness

Fundamental Theorem of Algebra (FTA)

A non-constant polynomial of degree n has n roots in the complex plane. Then if $p(x)$ is a polynomial of degree $\leq n$ and suppose we find $n + 1$ distinct roots then p must be a constant.